Parametrization of Peak Prediction Using Quantile Regression and Asymmetric Laplace Noise

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Abstract

In many signal processing applications, defining and finding peaks is an important part of the pipeline. Peak prediction can be a very challenging endeavor, especially when there is a lot of noise. In this work, the peak region is considered as a combination of a Gaussian trend with additive asymmetric Laplace noise, and the peak is modeled as the peak of the Gaussian trend.

We propose a criterion based on the weighted quantile which predicts the optimal number of observations necessary for the exact prediction of the peak's location. We analyze the effect of the signal-to-noise ratio on our prediction. We show that for small signal-to-noise ratio (a lot of noise), the prediction becomes inaccurate.

In this case, we propose a new idea called the entry time into the region of the peak and the exit time from the region of the peak. We demonstrate how to apply our new idea to real data and we analyze the effect of the choice of the objective function. As a numerical application, we consider the peak prediction of the daily infections during the first wave of COVID-19 in China, France, and Germany.

Keywords: Gaussian model, least absolute deviation, weighted median, entry time, region of the peak, daily infection.

Mathematics subject classification: 62M10, 60G35.

1 Introduction

Predicting peaks in time series data is crucial across various domains for proactive decision-making, risk management, resource allocation, and disaster preparedness. The ability to anticipate spikes in data can serve as an early warning system for events such as disease outbreaks in epidemiology, allowing public health officials to allocate resources and implement preventive measures effectively. In energy management, predicting peak electricity demand enables utility companies to adjust generation and distribution schedules, ensuring a reliable power supply

and preventing shortages. Financial analysts use peak prediction to manage investment risks by anticipating fluctuations in stock prices or market volatility. Additionally, environmental scientists rely on peak prediction to monitor pollution levels and natural disasters, facilitating disaster preparedness and response efforts. The examples justifying the usefulness of locating, measuring, and understanding these peaks are numerous.

Predicting peaks in time series data is a complex task due to several reasons. Firstly, the presence of noise and variability in the data makes it difficult to accurately identify and predict peaks. This noise can originate from various sources, such as measurement errors or random fluctuations in the data. Additionally, many real-world systems exhibit nonlinear dynamics, meaning that the relationship between variables is not strictly linear. Nonlinearities can lead to unexpected behaviors in the data, further complicating peak prediction. Moreover, time series data often contain complex patterns, such as multiple overlapping peaks or irregular intervals between peaks, making it challenging to develop accurate prediction models. In the literature, existing peak prediction methods often rely on specific assumptions about the data distribution or peak characteristics, which may not always hold true in practice, leading to inaccurate predictions (see for instance, Pei and Shaman (2017) and Tucker (2020)).

Popular forecasting models such as Autoregressive Integrated Moving Average (ARIMA) and Recurrent Neural Networks (RNN) often struggle to accurately define or forecast peak values in time series data. Despite their effectiveness in capturing general trends and patterns, these models may overlook or underestimate the occurrence of peaks due to their complexity and the inherent variability of peak events.

In the realm of peak prediction, there has been relatively little theoretical work compared to more generalized forecasting approaches. One notable contribution in this area is Tucker thesis Tucker (2020), which delved into the dynamics of trend, seasonality, and noise in time series data to predict peaks. Tucker research explored how the interplay between these components could be leveraged to identify and forecast peak events accurately. Inspired by previous studies Yu (2019), Tucker applied a combination of general prediction techniques and specialized peak prediction methods. He utilized the Peaks function available in Scipy's Signal module, which offers tools for detecting and analyzing peak values in data. Tucker thesis represents a significant step forward in the field of peak prediction, offering insights into the complex dynamics underlying peak events and proposing practical methods for their prediction. By building on existing theoretical frameworks and leveraging advanced computational tools, Tucker work contributes to the growing body of research aimed at improving the accuracy and reliability of peak forecasting in time series data.

We adopt in this work the same approach as in Dermoune et al. (2025) . We assume that the peak region is equal to $[T, h]$, where T represents the current date and h a specific time horizon. To model this hypothesis effectively, we consider our time series over the interval $[1, T]$ as a

composite of a Gaussian trend and noise. Our primary objective is to forecast the amplitude A, location L, and width S of the Gaussian trend based on observed data from the interval $[1, T]$. We introduce a criterion based on the weighted quantile technique, which enables us to determine the optimal number of observations required for accurately predicting the location L of the peak. Additionally, we conduct an analysis to assess the impact of the signal-to-noise ratio on our predictive accuracy. We show that in case of low signal-to-noise ratios, prediction accuracy diminishes. To address this challenge, we propose as in Dermoune et al. (2025) a novel concept termed the "peak region entry and exit times".

The aim of our study is to extend the work of Dermoune et al. (2025) to the quantile regression. First, we introduce our approach to selecting the minimization of the quantile regression and demonstrate, using simulated data, the number of observations required to accurately predict the location of the peak. This approach is based on the concept of the weighted quantile. Secondly, we establish that for high signal-to-noise ratios, the peak location prediction is correct. However, in cases of low `SNR` (indicating high noise levels), the accuracy of the prediction deteriorates. In these cases, we propose a new concept called "peak region entry time" and "peak region exit time". We illustrate this concept by parameterizing the entry time in the peak region and the exit time from the peak region by the tau-quantile when the data are the daily COVID-19 infections during the first wave in China Barmparis and Tsironis (2020), France and Germany.

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows. In Section 2 we present our proposed model. More precisely, we consider Gaussian trend with additive generalized Laplace noise. Section 8 is dedicated to application results to forecast the peak incidence of daily COVID-19 infections during the initial wave in China, France, and Germany.

2 Quantile-Based Estimation Methodology

We consider the problem of estimating the amplitude, location, and spread of a unimodal signal corrupted by noise. The model is:

$$I(t) = A \exp\left(-\frac{(t-L)^2}{S^2}\right) + e(t), \qquad t = 1, \ldots, T. \tag{1}$$

where $A > 0$ is the amplitude, $L > 0$ the peak location, $S > 0$ the spread (scale), and $e(t)$ is additive noise. Given observations $(I(t))_{t=1}^{T}$, our goal is to estimate the underlying parameters using quantile regression, i.e., minimizing the asymmetric loss

$$\rho_\tau(u) = u\left(\tau - \mathbf{1}_{\{u<0\}}\right). \tag{2}$$

for a fixed quantile level $\tau \in (0,1)$. We define the quantile objective:

$$f_\tau(T,a,l,s) = \frac{1}{T}\sum_{t=1}^{T} \rho_\tau\left(I(t) - a\exp\left(-\frac{(t-l)^2}{s^2}\right)\right). \tag{3}$$

For fixed candidate values of (l,s), the optimal amplitude a minimizes $a \mapsto f_\tau(T,a,l,s)$. This minimizer is a weighted τ-quantile of a transformed version of the data, as described below.

2.1 Weighted Quantile Estimation of Amplitude

Let $w(t) = \exp\left(-\frac{(t-l)^2}{s^2}\right)$ be the weight associated with time point t, and define:

$$x(t) = I(t)\exp\left(\frac{(t-l)^2}{s^2}\right).$$

Then the optimal amplitude a is the weighted τ-quantile of $x(t)$ with weights $w(t)$. The following proposition gives the corresponding characterization of the weighted quantile as the minimizer of the weighted quantile loss. The proof of the following Proposition is the same as in the work of Novoselac (2020).

Proposition 1. *Let $(x(t), w(t))$ be a sequence of real values with positive weights $w(t) > 0$. Then, for any $\tau \in (0,1)$, the weighted τ-quantile minimizes the weighted quantile loss:*

$$q_\tau = \arg\min_{a\in\mathbb{R}} \sum_{t=1}^{T} w(t)\,\rho_\tau(a - x(t)),$$

where ρ_τ is the quantile check function defined in (2). To compute q_τ, sort the values $x(t)$ in increasing order, obtaining a permutation π such that

$$x(\pi(1)) \le x(\pi(2)) \le \cdots \le x(\pi(T)).$$

Define the reordered weights $w_\pi(t) = w(\pi(t))$. Let

$$k = \min\left\{ j \in \{1,\dots,T\} : \sum_{t=1}^{j} w_\pi(t) \ge \tau \sum_{t=1}^{T} w(t) \right\}.$$

Then the weighted τ-quantile satisfies $q_\tau = x(\pi(k))$.

2.2 Quantile-Based Estimation Procedure

We define the following steps to jointly estimate the location $\hat{l}(T)$, amplitude $\hat{a}(T)$, and spread $\hat{s}(T)$:

Algorithm 1 Quantile-based estimation of peak parameters

Require: Time horizon T, upper bound $h > T$, quantile level $\tau \in (0, 1)$

1: For each candidate $l \in [1, h]$, find $s^*(l) = \arg\min_s f_\tau(T, a^*(l, s), l, s)$
2: Set $\hat{l}(T) = \arg\min_l f_\tau(T, a^*(l, s^*(l)), l, s^*(l))$
3: Set $\hat{s}(T) = s^*(\hat{l}(T))$
4: Set $\hat{a}(T) = a^*(\hat{l}(T), \hat{s}(T))$

Ensure: Estimated parameters $(\hat{l}(T), \hat{a}(T), \hat{s}(T))$

2.3 Remark on Asymmetry and Robustness

This method generalizes the classic Least Absolute Deviations (LAD) estimator, recovered at $\tau = 0.5$. By adjusting τ, we introduce asymmetry into the estimation loss, enabling the model to better adapt to skewed noise distributions. This makes the approach especially valuable in early-warning systems and epidemic peak detection where overestimation and underestimation have asymmetric consequences.

3 Quantile-Based Objective Function under Noise-Free Conditions

We first consider the idealized scenario where the signal is not corrupted by noise. The model of interest is given by

$$I(t) = A \exp\left(-\frac{(t-L)^2}{S^2}\right), \quad t = 1, \ldots, T,$$

where $A = 15000$, $L = 22$, $S = 10$, and $T \in \{2, 3, 10, 20, 21\}$. The quantile-based estimation procedure is implemented by minimizing the following objective function (3). The amplitude a is computed via a weighted τ-quantile, as described in Section 2.

Since the goal is to predict the location L of the peak before it becomes observable, we restrict the minimization over candidate peak locations $l > T$. For each value of $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, we compute and visualize the objective curve $l \mapsto f_\tau(T, a(T, l), l, s(T, l))$ for the selected values of T (see Figure 1).

Remark. For each fixed sample size T, we computed the value of the minimized objective function at the estimated parameters $(\hat{a}, \hat{l}, \hat{s})$. The results indicate that the lowest objective value is typically achieved for $\tau = 0.95$, suggesting that upper quantiles align particularly well with the noiseless signal structure. The only exception is at $T = 20$, where $\tau = 0.75$ yields a slightly smaller loss. This empirical observation may help guide quantile selection when prior knowledge of signal shape or noise properties is limited.

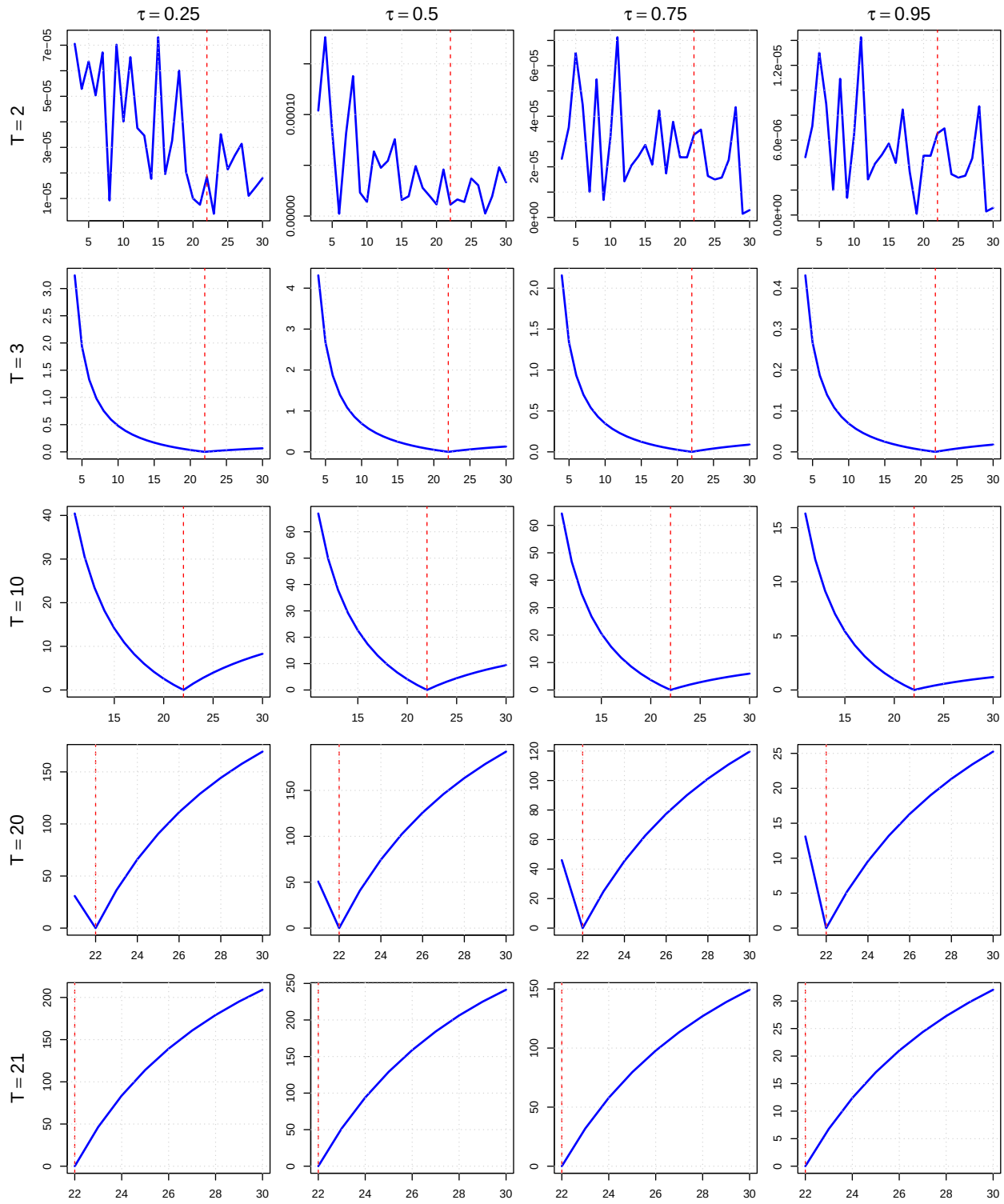


Figure 1: Objective function $l \mapsto f_\tau(T, a, l, s)$ computed for $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$ and $T \in \{2, 3, 10, 20, 21\}$, under a noise-free signal. The vertical dashed line indicates the true peak location $L = 22$, and the search is restricted to values $l > T$.

4 Quantile-Based Estimation with τ-Aligned Noise

To analyze how quantile-aligned noise affects peak estimation, we introduce a unified noise model based on the *general asymmetric Laplace* (GAL) distribution. This flexible family allows both symmetric and asymmetric noise structures while maintaining the property that the τ-quantile of the noise is at zero.

4.1 Asymmetric Laplace Noise Aligned with the τ-Quantile

We consider an asymmetric Laplace distribution parametrized by a location parameter $m \in \mathbb{R}$, a scale parameter $\lambda > 0$, and an asymmetry parameter $k > 0$. Its density is given by

$$f_{m,\lambda,k}(x) = \frac{\lambda}{k + k^{-1}} \begin{cases} \exp\left(\dfrac{\lambda(x-m)}{k}\right), & x < m, \\ \exp\left(-\lambda k(x-m)\right), & x \geq m. \end{cases}$$

The parameter m is the mode of the distribution, while k controls its asymmetry and λ controls its concentration. The distribution function evaluated at the mode is

$$\mathbb{P}(X < m) = \frac{\lambda}{k + k^{-1}} \int_{-\infty}^{m} \exp\left(\frac{\lambda(x-m)}{k}\right) dx = \frac{k^2}{1+k^2}.$$

Therefore, to align the asymmetric Laplace noise with the τ-quantile regression criterion, we require

$$\mathbb{P}(e(t) < 0) = \tau, \tag{4}$$

and $\tau \in (0,1)$. Since the location of the noise can be fixed at zero, we set $m = 0$. The corresponding asymmetry parameter is then determined by

$$\frac{k^2}{1+k^2} = \tau,$$

or equivalently,

$$k = \sqrt{\frac{\tau}{1-\tau}}. \tag{5}$$

Thus, the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace noise has density

$$f_{\tau,\lambda}(x) = \frac{\lambda}{k + k^{-1}} \begin{cases} \exp\left(\dfrac{\lambda x}{k}\right), & x < 0, \\ \exp(-\lambda k x), & x \geq 0, \end{cases}$$

where k is given by (5). By construction, the noise satisfies the τ-alignment property (4). In particular, when $\tau = 1/2$, we have $k = 1$, and the asymmetric Laplace distribution reduces to the symmetric Laplace distribution centered at zero. Hence, the symmetric Laplace case is recovered as a special case of the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace model.

4.2 Simulation under Asymmetric Laplace Noise

We now investigate the behavior of the quantile-based peak estimation procedure when the additive noise follows the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution introduced in Section 4.1. In the parameterization based on the quantile loss, the density of the noise can be written as

$$f_{\tau,b}(x) = \frac{\tau(1-\tau)}{b} \exp\left(-\frac{1}{b}\rho_\tau(x)\right), \qquad \tau \in (0,1), \quad b > 0. \tag{6}$$

where ρ_τ is the check function defined in (2). Equivalently,

$$f_{\tau,b}(x) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{\tau(1-\tau)}{b} \exp\left(-\dfrac{\tau x}{b}\right), & x \geq 0, \\ \dfrac{\tau(1-\tau)}{b} \exp\left(\dfrac{(1-\tau)x}{b}\right), & x < 0. \end{cases}$$

The normalization follows from

$$\int_{-\infty}^{+\infty} \exp\left(-\frac{1}{b}\rho_\tau(x)\right) dx = \frac{b}{1-\tau} + \frac{b}{\tau} = \frac{b}{\tau(1-\tau)}.$$

Moreover, by construction, the noise satisfies the τ-alignment property (4). This distribution is directly compatible with the quantile-based estimation criterion. Indeed,

$$-\log f_{\tau,b}(e) = -\log\left(\frac{\tau(1-\tau)}{b}\right) + \frac{1}{b}\rho_\tau(e).$$

Therefore, for fixed τ and b, minimizing the negative log-likelihood is equivalent to minimizing the empirical quantile loss. The asymmetric Laplace model thus provides a probabilistic interpretation of the quantile-based peak estimation procedure without introducing a separate estimation criterion. For the simulation study, the true signal is

$$I(t) = A \exp\left(-\frac{(t-L)^2}{S^2}\right),$$

with $A = 1$, $L = 22$, $S = 10$. Since the maximum amplitude of the Gaussian signal is $\max_t I(t) = A$, we define the signal-to-noise ratio as the ratio between the peak amplitude of the signal and the standard deviation of the noise:

$$\mathrm{SNR} = \frac{A}{\sqrt{\mathrm{Var}(e(t))}}. \tag{7}$$

In the simulations, we set $\mathrm{SNR} = 1000$. For each $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, the corresponding asymmetric Laplace noise is generated with asymmetry parameter (5). Thus, the noise variance is calibrated according to

$$\mathrm{Var}(e(t)) = \left(\frac{A}{\mathrm{SNR}}\right)^2. \tag{8}$$

For the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution, this variance is

$$\mathrm{Var}(e(t)) = b^2 \frac{\tau^2 + (1-\tau)^2}{\tau^2(1-\tau)^2}. \tag{9}$$

Combining (8) and (9) gives

$$b = \frac{A}{\mathrm{SNR}} \frac{\tau(1-\tau)}{\sqrt{\tau^2 + (1-\tau)^2}}. \tag{10}$$

For each τ, the objective function $l \mapsto f_\tau(T, a, l, s)$ is evaluated for the time horizons $T \in \{4, 6, 8, 9, 10\}$. For each candidate peak location l, the scale parameter s is optimized over the prescribed interval, and the amplitude a is determined as the weighted τ-quantile described in Section 2.1. The resulting objective profiles are then compared across the different values of τ. The resulting profiles are displayed in Figure 2. The true peak location $L = 22$ is marked by a vertical dashed line. Each panel corresponds to a different pair (T, τ), and the curves show the behavior of the quantile-loss objective across candidate peak locations.

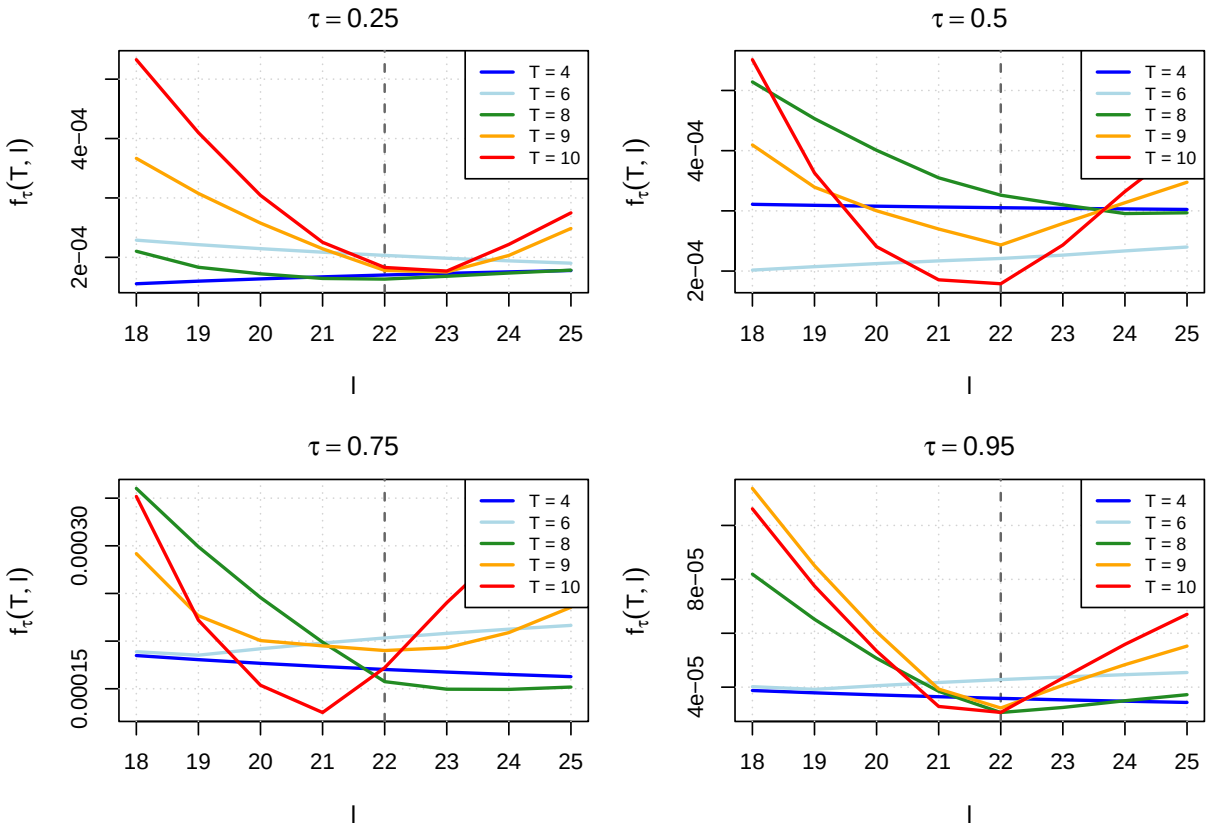


Figure 2: Objective function profiles $l \mapsto f_\tau(T, a, l, s)$ under *asymmetric Laplace* noise, for $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$ and $T \in \{4, 6, 8, 9, 10\}$. Each subfigure corresponds to one value of τ, and the dashed vertical line indicates the true peak location $L = 22$.

5 Parameter Estimation Trajectories

We now analyze how the estimated model parameters, location $\hat{l}(T)$, amplitude $\hat{a}(T)$, and scale $\hat{s}(T)$, evolve as the sample size T increases. Our goal is to assess the stability and convergence of these estimators under the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace noise introduced in Section 4.1, including its symmetric special case. All experiments use the SNR definition given in (7), with SNR $= 1000$, and consider quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$.

5.1 τ-Aligned Asymmetric Laplace Noise

We consider the signal-plus-noise model (1), with $T = 30$, $A = 1$, $L = 22$, $S = 10$. The noise $e(t)$ follows the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution introduced in Section 4.1, with density (6). The asymmetry parameter is determined by the quantile level according to (5), so that the τ-alignment property (4) holds. In particular, $\tau = 1/2$ corresponds to the symmetric Laplace distribution, whereas the other values of τ considered here produce asymmetric noise. The scale parameter b is calibrated separately for each τ so that the variance of the noise satisfies the fixed signal-to-noise ratio condition (8). For the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution, this gives (9), and therefore (10). At each time horizon $T \in \{4, \ldots, 30\}$, we estimate the parameters $(\hat{l}(T), \hat{a}(T), \hat{s}(T))$ by minimizing the objective function (3) over the candidate peak locations and scale parameters, with the amplitude a re-estimated for each pair (l, s) as the weighted τ-quantile described in Section 2.1. The scale parameter s is optimized over the prescribed interval, and the location parameter l is selected by minimizing the resulting objective over the candidate locations. Figure 3 shows the resulting estimation trajectories $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$, $T \mapsto \hat{a}(T)$, $T \mapsto \hat{s}(T)$, for each quantile level τ. The true parameter values $(L, A, S) = (22, 1, 10)$ are indicated by dashed horizontal lines.

6 Stability Analysis

This section investigates the temporal stability of the estimated peak location when the signal-to-noise ratio is reduced. We focus on the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace noise introduced in Section 4.1 and examine how the estimated peak location evolves as new observations become available. In particular, we compare the stability of the estimation paths across different quantile levels and assess the effect of a lower signal-to-noise ratio on the ability to recover the true peak location.

6.1 Low Signal-to-Noise Performance

To evaluate the robustness of the quantile-based estimator under a lower signal-to-noise ratio, we consider the signal-plus-noise model (1), with $T = 35$, $A = 1$, $L = 22$, $S = 10$. The noise $e(t)$ follows the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution introduced in Section 4.1, with density (6). For each $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, the scale parameter b is calibrated so

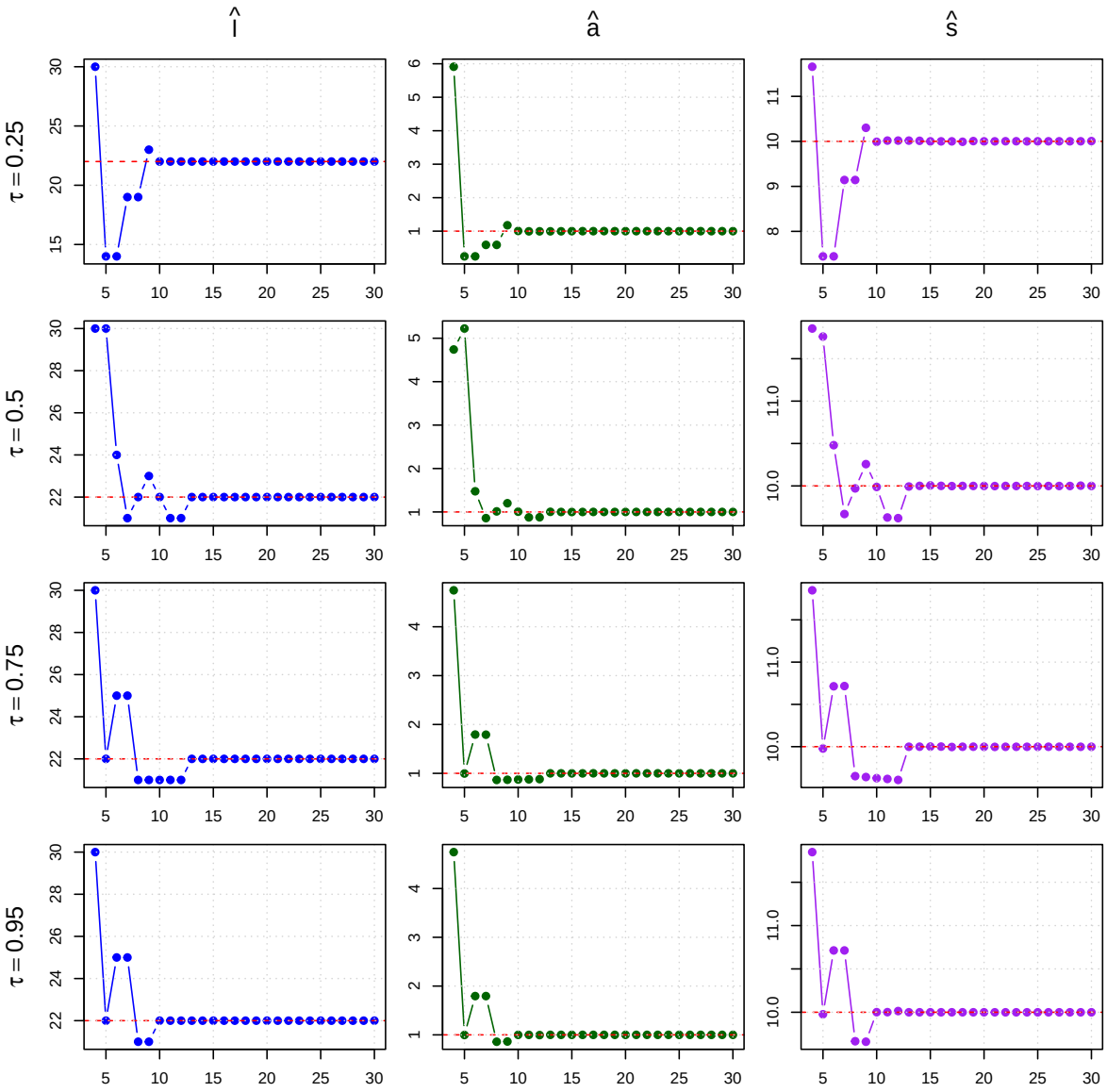


Figure 3: Estimation paths $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$ (left), $\hat{a}(T)$ (middle), and $\hat{s}(T)$ (right) under τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace noise with signal-to-noise ratio (SNR) 1000. Each row corresponds to a quantile level $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$. The true values $(L, A, S) = (22, 1, 10)$ are indicated by dashed horizontal lines.

that (8), with SNR = 40, according to the definition in (7). Using the variance of the τ-aligned asymmetric Laplace distribution gives (10). For each quantile level τ, we compute the estimation path $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$, $T = 4, \ldots, 35$, where $(\hat{l}(T), \hat{a}(T), \hat{s}(T))$ is obtained by minimizing the empirical quantile loss over the candidate peak locations and scale parameters, with the amplitude re-estimated as the weighted τ-quantile described in Section 2.1. To characterize the temporal stability of the estimated peak location, we consider the earliest observation horizon T_{stab} from which all subsequent estimates remain within a prescribed range of one another. Specifically, for a tolerance $\varepsilon = 4$, we define

$$T_{\text{stab}} = \min \left\{ T : \max_{u \geq T} \hat{l}(u) - \min_{u \geq T} \hat{l}(u) \leq \varepsilon \right\}.$$

This stabilization time measures the earliest point from which the remaining estimation path remains confined to a stable range. Figure 4 displays the resulting estimation paths for the four quantile levels. The horizontal dashed line indicates the true peak location $L = 22$. The comparison illustrates how the temporal stability of the estimated peak location depends on the quantile level when the signal-to-noise ratio is reduced. The corresponding stabilization times are reported in Table 1. Smaller values of T_{stab} indicate that the estimator reaches a stable regime earlier, whereas larger values indicate that additional observations are required before the estimated peak location becomes stable.

Table 1: Stabilization times T_{stab} for the estimated peak location under SNR = 40 and different quantile levels.

	$\tau = 0.25$	$\tau = 0.5$	$\tau = 0.75$	$\tau = 0.95$
T_{stab}	17	17	11	10

7 Entry and Exit Times of the Peak Region

The sequential estimation procedure introduced in the preceding sections provides, for each observation horizon T, an estimate $\hat{l}(T)$ of the peak location. The stabilization criterion considered in Section 6 characterizes the point from which the future estimation path remains within a prescribed tolerance. In this section, we introduce a complementary construction based on the oscillations of the estimated peak location. This construction aims at identifying candidate time intervals describing the region in which the estimated peak location becomes stable, through a data-driven time of entry and a time of exit. The operational construction is based only on the sequential estimation trajectory $T \longmapsto \hat{l}(T)$. The true peak location L is not required to construct the candidate entry and exit times. In the simulation study, where L is known, it is used only for an ex post assessment of whether a candidate peak region contains the true peak.

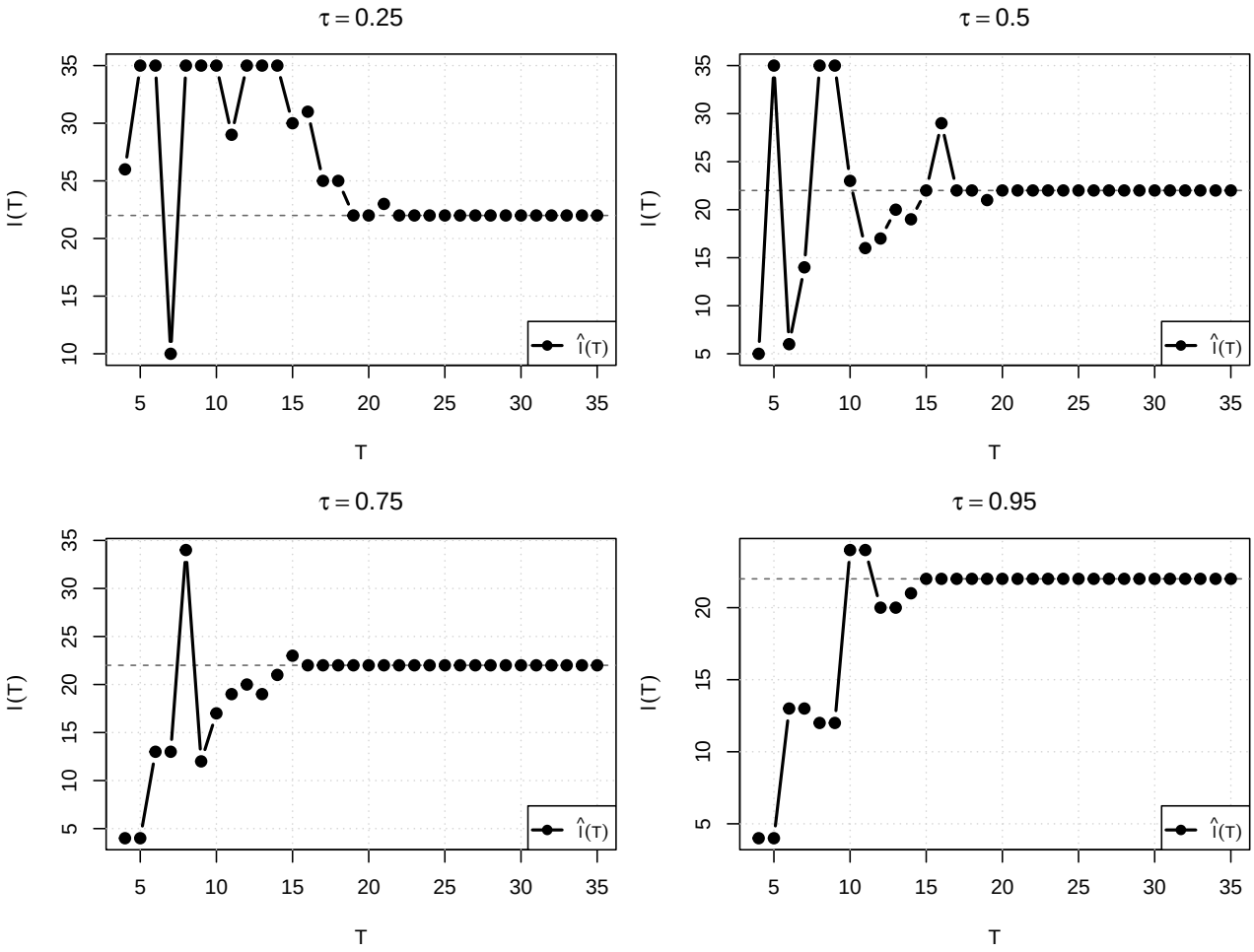


Figure 4: Estimation paths $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$ under a low signal-to-noise ratio (SNR $= 40$), for quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$. The horizontal dashed line indicates the true peak location $L = 22$.

7.1 Oscillations of the estimated peak location

Let $T_0 < T_0 + 1 < \cdots < h$ denote the observation horizons for which the sequential estimator $\hat{l}(T)$ is available. For two observation times T and T' satisfying $T_0 \le T < T' \le h$, we define the oscillation of the estimated peak location over the interval $[T, T']$ by

$$\omega_l(T, T') = \max_{T \le t_1, t_2 \le T'} \left| \hat{l}(t_1) - \hat{l}(t_2) \right|. \tag{11}$$

Thus, $\omega_l(T, T')$ measures the largest variation of the estimated peak location over the interval $[T, T']$. In particular, $\omega_l(T, T') = 0$ if and only if $\hat{l}(t)$ is constant over the observation horizons contained in $[T, T']$. A particular case of (11) is the future-tail oscillation

$$\omega_l(T, h) = \max_{T \le t_1, t_2 \le h} \left| \hat{l}(t_1) - \hat{l}(t_2) \right|.$$

This quantity measures the largest variation that can still occur in the estimated peak location after observation time T. The future-tail oscillation is nonincreasing with T. Indeed, if $T_1 < T_2 \le h$, then $[T_2, h] \subset [T_1, h]$, and consequently $\omega_l(T_2, h) \le \omega_l(T_1, h)$. Hence, the function $g(T) = \omega_l(T, h)$ provides a nonincreasing measure of the remaining temporal variation of the estimated peak location.

7.2 Recursive construction of candidate exit times

The candidate exit times are constructed recursively from the future-tail oscillation. Let $h = \max\{T : \hat{l}(T)\}$ is available. The initial candidate is defined by $\tau'_0 = 0$, $T^{(0)}_{\text{exit}} = h$. We also initialize the current boundary at $B_0 = h$. Suppose that at a given step k we have a current oscillation level τ'_k and a current boundary B_k. We consider observation times strictly before the current boundary and search for the earliest observation time T'_k satisfying

$$T'_k < B_k, \qquad |\omega_l(T'_k, h) - \tau'_k| \le \varepsilon_1, \tag{12}$$

where ε_1 is a numerical tolerance used to implement the equality in the R procedure. If such an observation time exists, let $T^{(k)}_{\text{prev}} = \max\{T < T'_k\}$ be the observation horizon immediately preceding T'_k. The next candidate exit time and oscillation level are then defined by $T^{(k+1)}_{\text{exit}} = T^{(k)}_{\text{prev}}$ and $\tau'_{k+1} = \omega_l\left(T^{(k)}_{\text{prev}}, h\right)$. The new boundary is set to $B_{k+1} = T'_k$. If no observation time satisfying (12) exists before the current boundary, the recursion does not terminate immediately. Instead, the observation horizon immediately preceding the current boundary is taken as the next candidate exit time: $T^{(k+1)}_{\text{exit}} = \max\{T < B_k\}$, with corresponding oscillation level $\tau'_{k+1} = \omega_l\left(T^{(k+1)}_{\text{exit}}, h\right)$, and the new boundary is set to $B_{k+1} = T^{(k+1)}_{\text{exit}}$. The recursion is continued as long as the next oscillation level increases numerically. In the implementation, the condition $\tau'_{k+1} > \tau'_k$ is checked up to a numerical tolerance ε_1. This recursive construction generates a sequence $\left\{\left(\tau'_k, T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}\right)\right\}_{k=0}^{K}$, where each pair consists of a candidate exit time and the corresponding future-tail oscillation. Importantly, the construction uses only the observed trajectory $\hat{l}(T)$ and

does not require knowledge of the true peak location L.

7.3 Determination of the entry time

For a given candidate exit time $T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)}$, we first consider all observation times strictly before the candidate exit time. The set

$$E_k = \left\{ T < T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)} : \omega_l(T, T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)}) \geq \tau_k' - \varepsilon_2 \right\},$$

is the numerical implementation of the Stage-2 set, where ε_2 is a numerical tolerance. If E_k is empty, the candidate does not yield a valid entry time. Otherwise, we define $T_k^* = \max E_k$. The corresponding oscillation level is $\tau_k = \omega_l \left(T_k^*, T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)} \right)$. We then consider all observation times $T < T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)}$ for which $\left| \omega_l(T, T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)}) - \tau_k \right| \leq \varepsilon_3$, where ε_3 is the numerical tolerance used for equality in Stage 2. The entry time is defined as the first such observation horizon:

$$T_{\text{entry}}^{(k)} = \min \left\{ T < T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)} : \left| \omega_l(T, T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)}) - \tau_k \right| \leq \varepsilon_3 \right\},$$

provided that such an observation time exists. The width associated with the candidate is

$$w_k = T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)} - T_{\text{entry}}^{(k)}. \tag{13}$$

The resulting candidate peak region is therefore represented by the interval $\mathcal{R}_k = \left[T_{\text{entry}}^{(k)}, T_{\text{exit}}^{(k)} \right]$. The endpoints are determined entirely from the sequential estimation trajectory and the oscillation construction.

8 Real-World Application: COVID-19 Case Study

We now demonstrate the application of our quantile-based peak estimation framework to real-world data. We focus on the daily confirmed COVID-19 cases in China, France, and Germany. Figure 5 displays the daily case series for these three countries. For each country, we analyze the sequence $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$ for the quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, using quantile-loss minimization over the Gaussian-shaped parametric peak model. The candidate peak location is restricted to the currently observed range, $l \in \{1, \ldots, T\}$. We then assess the temporal stabilization of the estimated peak location using the retrospective stabilization criterion introduced in Section 6. The corresponding stabilization time T_{entry} is determined separately for each country and quantile level.

8.1 China

We analyze the first wave of the COVID-19 epidemic in China, using the first 60 daily new case counts from January 22 to March 22, 2020. The estimation is performed for observation horizons $T = 4, \ldots, 35$. For each quantile level $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, we compute the

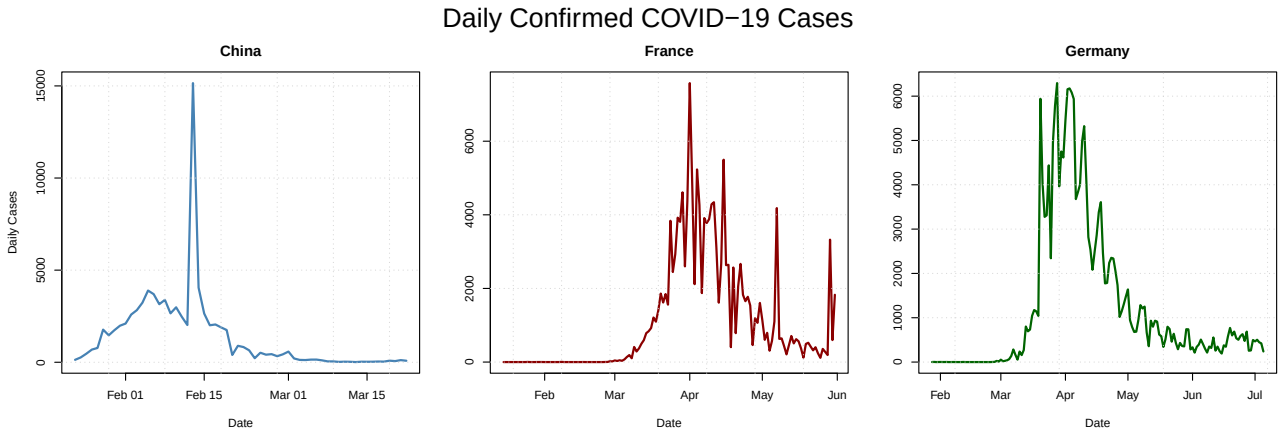


Figure 5: Daily confirmed COVID-19 cases in China, France, and Germany (left to right).

sequence $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$ by minimizing the empirical quantile loss over the Gaussian-shaped peak model, with candidate peak locations ranging over $l \in \{1, \ldots, h\}$ with $h = 35$. Temporal stabilization is assessed using the criterion introduced in Section 6, with tolerance $\varepsilon = 3$. The resulting estimated peak-location sequences are reported in Table 5.

The corresponding stabilization times are $T_{\text{stab}} = 15$, 13, 23, and 28 for $\tau = 0.25$, 0.5, 0.75, and 0.95, respectively. The stabilization criterion characterizes the temporal behavior of the estimated peak-location path and is distinct from the entry–exit construction introduced in Section 7. For the present real-data application, where the observed peak location is known retrospectively, we apply the latter construction and, among the Stage-2 candidates satisfying $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < L < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, retain the one with the smallest width $w_k = T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}} - T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}}$. This minimum-width selection is used only for retrospective evaluation and is not part of the operational procedure when the peak location is unknown.

For China, the observed peak location is $L = 22$. The resulting retrospective selection for the four quantile levels is reported in Table 2. For $\tau = 0.25$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 1$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 26$, $T^* = 15$, $\tau = 3$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 15$, giving a window width $w^* = 11$. For $\tau = 0.5$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 2$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 24$, $T^* = 15$, $\tau = 2$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 15$, giving $w^* = 9$. For $\tau = 0.95$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 15$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 26$, $T^* = 21$, $\tau = 21$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 13$, giving $w^* = 13$. For $\tau = 0.75$, no Stage-2 candidate satisfies the strict containment condition $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < 22 < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, and consequently no retrospective candidate is selected.

Table 2: Retrospective selection of the peak-region candidate for COVID-19 in China.

τ	k	τ'_k	T_{exit}	T^*	τ	T_{entry}	w^*	L
0.25	1	1	26	15	3	15	11	22
0.50	2	2	24	15	2	15	9	22
0.75	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	22
0.95	4	15	26	21	21	13	13	22

The results show that the retrospective peak-region candidate depends on the quantile level. The selected windows are $(15, 26)$ for $\tau = 0.25$, $(15, 24)$ for $\tau = 0.5$, and $(13, 26)$ for $\tau = 0.95$.

For $\tau = 0.75$, the two-stage construction does not produce a candidate whose window strictly contains the observed peak location $L = 22$. These results complement the stabilization analysis in Table 5: the stabilization time describes the temporal stabilization of the estimated peak-location path, whereas the two-stage construction uses its oscillations to identify candidate windows for the peak region.

8.2 France

Next, we apply the estimation method to daily COVID-19 cases in France, using ECDC data from January 15 to May 31, 2020. The analysis covers observation horizons $T = 50, \ldots, 89$. For each quantile level $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, we compute the corresponding estimation path $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$, with candidate peak locations ranging over $l \in \{1, \ldots, h\}$ with $h = 120$. Temporal stabilization is assessed using the criterion introduced in Section 6, with tolerance $\varepsilon = 5$. The estimated peak-location sequences are reported in Table 6.

The corresponding stabilization times are $T_{\text{stab}} = 85$, 82, 80, and 85 for $\tau = 0.25$, 0.5, 0.75, and 0.95, respectively. The stabilization criterion characterizes the temporal behavior of the estimated peak-location path and is distinct from the entry–exit construction introduced in Section 7. For the present real-data application, where the observed peak location is known retrospectively, we apply the latter construction and, among the Stage-2 candidates satisfying $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < L < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, retain the one with the smallest width $w_k = T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}} - T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}}$. This minimum-width selection is used only for retrospective evaluation and is not part of the operational procedure when the peak location is unknown.

For France, the observed peak location is $L = 78$. The resulting retrospective selection for the four quantile levels is reported in Table 3. For $\tau = 0.25$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 13$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 79$, $T^* = 76$, $\tau = 13$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 76$, giving a window width $w^* = 3$. For $\tau = 0.5$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 7$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 81$, $T^* = 73$, $\tau = 7$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 73$, giving $w^* = 8$. For $\tau = 0.95$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 11$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 80$, $T^* = 77$, $\tau = 13$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 74$, giving $w^* = 6$. For $\tau = 0.75$, no Stage-2 candidate satisfies the strict containment condition $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < 78 < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, and consequently no retrospective candidate is selected.

Table 3: Retrospective selection of the peak-region candidate for COVID-19 in France.

τ	k	τ'_k	T_{exit}	T^*	τ	T_{entry}	w^*	L
0.25	5	13	79	76	13	76	3	78
0.50	4	7	81	73	7	73	8	78
0.75	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	78
0.95	6	11	80	77	13	74	6	78

The results show that the retrospective peak-region candidate depends on the quantile level. The selected windows are $(76, 79)$ for $\tau = 0.25$, $(73, 81)$ for $\tau = 0.5$, and $(74, 80)$ for $\tau = 0.95$. For $\tau = 0.75$, the two-stage construction does not produce a candidate whose window strictly contains the observed peak location $L = 78$. These results complement the stabilization analysis

in Table 6: the stabilization time describes the temporal stabilization of the estimated peak-location path, whereas the two-stage construction uses its oscillations to identify candidate windows for the peak region.

8.3 Germany

Finally, we consider COVID-19 daily cases in Germany from January 28 to July 5, 2020. To align the peak location with day $t = 61$, we index the data starting on January 28. We analyze observation horizons $T = 40, \ldots, 75$. For each quantile level $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$, we compute the estimation path $T \mapsto \hat{l}(T)$, with candidate peak locations ranging over $l \in \{1, \ldots, h\}$ with $h = 75$. Temporal stabilization is assessed using the criterion introduced in Section 6, with tolerance $\varepsilon = 15$. The resulting estimation paths are reported in Table 7.

The corresponding stabilization times are $T_{\text{stab}} = 60$, 59, 56, and 57 for $\tau = 0.25$, 0.5, 0.75, and 0.95, respectively. The stabilization criterion characterizes the temporal behavior of the estimated peak-location path and is distinct from the entry–exit construction introduced in Section 7. For the present real-data application, where the observed peak location is known retrospectively, we apply the latter construction and, among the Stage-2 candidates satisfying $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < L < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, retain the one with the smallest width $w_k = T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}} - T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}}$. This minimum-width selection is used only for retrospective evaluation and is not part of the operational procedure when the peak location is unknown.

For Germany, the observed peak location is $L = 61$. The resulting retrospective selection for the four quantile levels is reported in Table 4. For $\tau = 0.25$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 15$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 62$, $T^* = 60$, $\tau = 15$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 60$, giving a window width $w^* = 2$. For $\tau = 0.95$, the selected candidate corresponds to $\tau'_k = 9$, with $T_{\text{exit}} = 63$, $T^* = 56$, $\tau = 18$, and $T_{\text{entry}} = 56$, giving $w^* = 7$. For $\tau = 0.5$ and $\tau = 0.75$, no Stage-2 candidate satisfies the strict containment condition $T^{(k)}_{\text{entry}} < 61 < T^{(k)}_{\text{exit}}$, and consequently no retrospective candidate is selected.

Table 4: Retrospective selection of the peak-region candidate for COVID-19 in Germany.

τ	k	τ'_k	T_{exit}	T^*	τ	T_{entry}	w^*	L
0.25	7	15	62	60	15	60	2	61
0.50	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	61
0.75	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	61
0.95	6	9	63	56	18	56	7	61

The results show that the retrospective peak-region candidate depends on the quantile level. The selected windows are $(60, 62)$ for $\tau = 0.25$, and $(56, 63)$ for $\tau = 0.95$. For $\tau = 0.5$ and $\tau = 0.75$, the two-stage construction does not produce a candidate whose window strictly contains the observed peak location $L = 61$. These results complement the stabilization analysis in Table 7: the stabilization time describes the temporal stabilization of the estimated peak-location path, whereas the two-stage construction uses its oscillations to identify candidate windows for the peak region.

8.4 Comparison Across Quantile Levels

To compare the four quantile specifications, we evaluate the minimized quantile-loss objective at the final observation horizon $T_{\max}$ for each country. This provides a descriptive comparison of the empirical objective values obtained under the different quantile levels considered. The quantile level yielding the smallest objective value at $T_{\max}$ is reported for each data set. The resulting minima are obtained for

- China: $\tau = 0.25$ at $T = 35$,
- France: $\tau = 0.95$ at $T = 89$,
- Germany: $\tau = 0.95$ at $T = 75$.

These results indicate that the empirical quantile-loss criterion favors different quantile specifications across the three epidemic trajectories. In particular, the lower quantile $\tau = 0.25$ yields the smallest objective value for China, whereas the upper quantile $\tau = 0.95$ yields the smallest objective value for both France and Germany. This comparison is descriptive and is intended to characterize the behavior of the proposed estimator under the four quantile levels considered, rather than to establish that any one of these quantiles represents the true conditional quantile of the epidemic process.

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A Trajectory Tables

Table 5: Estimated peak location $\hat{l}(T)$ for COVID-19 in China using quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$.

$\tau = 0.25,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 15,\ \varepsilon = 3$																
T	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
$\hat{l}(T)$	6	5	35	14	11	11	11	11	14	14	21	18	15	15	15	15
T	20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35
$\hat{l}(T)$	15	15	15	15	15	15	15	16	16	16	16	16	16	16	16	16
$\tau = 0.5,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 13,\ \varepsilon = 3$																
T	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
$\hat{l}(T)$	6	5	35	8	9	11	11	12	14	15	18	17	16	16	15	16
T	20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35
$\hat{l}(T)$	15	15	15	16	16	17	17	18	18	18	17	17	17	17	17	17
$\tau = 0.75,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 23,\ \varepsilon = 3$																
T	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
$\hat{l}(T)$	6	5	35	8	7	8	10	13	14	16	24	18	17	16	15	15
T	20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35
$\hat{l}(T)$	15	15	35	20	20	20	18	18	18	18	18	18	18	18	18	18
$\tau = 0.95,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 28,\ \varepsilon = 3$																
T	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
$\hat{l}(T)$	6	5	35	9	7	8	9	10	11	15	29	29	15	14	14	15
T	20	21	22	23	24	25	26	27	28	29	30	31	32	33	34	35
$\hat{l}(T)$	15	14	35	35	35	35	35	26	22	21	21	20	20	20	20	20

Table 6: Estimated peak location $\hat{l}(T)$ for COVID-19 in France using quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$.

$\tau = 0.25,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 85,\ \varepsilon = 5$																				
T	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69
$\hat{l}(T)$	63	61	120	120	56	119	96	71	83	71	72	67	65	66	66	66	74	72	72	69
T	70	71	72	73	74	75	76	77	78	79	80	81	82	83	84	85	86	87	88	89
$\hat{l}(T)$	69	72	81	82	90	92	76	80	89	88	75	79	83	76	76	80	82	82	82	82
$\tau = 0.5,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 82,\ \varepsilon = 5$																				
T	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69
$\hat{l}(T)$	49	54	88	72	54	120	58	60	120	87	108	71	69	77	67	72	73	71	73	70
T	70	71	72	73	74	75	76	77	78	79	80	81	82	83	84	85	86	87	88	89
$\hat{l}(T)$	74	78	78	83	88	90	88	85	90	86	85	86	83	80	79	79	80	80	81	80
$\tau = 0.75,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 80,\ \varepsilon = 5$																				
T	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69
$\hat{l}(T)$	48	51	120	120	120	120	120	59	64	65	87	68	66	81	73	70	83	83	72	72
T	70	71	72	73	74	75	76	77	78	79	80	81	82	83	84	85	86	87	88	89
$\hat{l}(T)$	120	89	78	84	84	86	85	83	120	87	83	81	81	81	80	79	79	81	81	81
$\tau = 0.95,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 85,\ \varepsilon = 5$																				
T	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69
$\hat{l}(T)$	48	51	56	106	59	120	120	69	59	60	63	63	64	67	67	70	94	87	77	70
T	70	71	72	73	74	75	76	77	78	79	80	81	82	83	84	85	86	87	88	89
$\hat{l}(T)$	120	120	120	120	79	76	76	76	89	89	89	86	86	86	85	83	80	78	79	79

Table 7: Estimated peak location $\hat{l}(T)$ for COVID-19 in Germany using quantile levels $\tau \in \{0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 0.95\}$.

$\tau = 0.25,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 60,\ \varepsilon = 15$																		
T	40	41	42	43	44	45	46	47	48	49	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57
$\hat{l}(T)$	75	45	42	41	44	47	70	75	48	75	54	52	51	51	75	75	75	75
T	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69	70	71	72	73	74	75
$\hat{l}(T)$	56	56	75	71	60	61	62	62	68	75	72	70	65	65	65	66	66	66
$\tau = 0.5,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 59,\ \varepsilon = 15$																		
T	40	41	42	43	44	45	46	47	48	49	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57
$\hat{l}(T)$	75	40	40	46	42	46	75	75	64	74	68	58	51	75	75	75	73	72
T	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69	70	71	72	73	74	75
$\hat{l}(T)$	56	63	74	71	62	61	61	61	63	65	66	66	66	64	64	65	66	66
$\tau = 0.75,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 56,\ \varepsilon = 15$																		
T	40	41	42	43	44	45	46	47	48	49	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57
$\hat{l}(T)$	75	40	40	44	42	47	75	75	54	75	60	57	52	75	75	75	55	56
T	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69	70	71	72	73	74	75
$\hat{l}(T)$	56	61	66	67	66	64	60	62	64	64	65	65	65	65	64	65	66	66
$\tau = 0.95,\ T_{\text{stab}} = 57,\ \varepsilon = 15$																		
T	40	41	42	43	44	45	46	47	48	49	50	51	52	53	54	55	56	57
$\hat{l}(T)$	74	50	43	41	41	43	53	53	53	53	54	54	54	75	75	75	71	55
T	58	59	60	61	62	63	64	65	66	67	68	69	70	71	72	73	74	75
$\hat{l}(T)$	53	55	57	58	58	57	58	59	60	61	61	61	61	61	61	64	66	66